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RESEARCH ARTICLE

# The making of "good" citizens: China's Social Credit Systems and infrastructures of social quantification

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**Abstract**

This article examines citizen scoring in China's Social Credit Systems (SCSs). Focusing on 50 municipal cases that potentially cover 210 million population, we analyze how state actors quantify social and economic life into measurable and comparable metrics and discuss the implications of SCSs through the lens of social quantification. Our results illustrate that the SCSs are envisioned and designed as social quantification practices including two facets: a normative apparatus encouraging "good" citizens and social morality, and a regulative apparatus disciplining "deviant" behaviors and enforcing social management. We argue that the SCSs illustrate the significant shift in which state actors increasingly become data processors whereas citizens are reconfigured as datafied subjects that can be measured, compared, and governed. We suggest that the SCSs function as infrastructures of social quantification for enforcing social management, constructing differences, and nudging people towards desired behaviors defined by the state.

**KEYWORDS**

China, credit scores, data, infrastructures, Social Credit Systems, social quantification

## INTRODUCTION

China is currently witnessing rapid progress in deploying the Social Credit Systems (SCSs). The central government has updated institutional structures and data platforms for gathering credit data and offering rewards and sanctions (Creemers, 2018). Municipal governments are progressively conducting multiple local schemes to rate personal social credit (Liu, 2019). Meanwhile, technology companies have also launched digital platforms for

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evaluating customer credit (Chong, 2019). While commercial systems are voluntary and often emphasize lending and financial activities, government-led SCSs are mandatory and claim the fundamental goal is to enhance the sincerity and civic virtue, and enforce law-abiding behaviors (Creemers, 2018; Zhang, 2020). Scholars have argued that the emerging SCSs entail China's transformation into a data-driven society (Backer, 2019; Liang et al., 2018).

Although China's national SCSs have attracted academic and public attention, hardly any work has addressed the implementation of SCSs at local levels where individual scoring systems are being tested. In fact, multiple cities have carried out the SCSs to rate and rank social credit of citizens and the credit scores further determine whether people receive benefits or restrictions in these cities. These local initiatives show the trajectory towards an upgrading system for social management and law enforcement in China (Creemers, 2018). At the same time, local SCSs can be situated in the increasingly prevalent practice of social quantification throughout the world (Cheney-Lippold, 2018; Couldry & Mejias, 2019; Mac Síthigh & Siems, 2019).

Drawing on policy documentation, official regulations and platforms, and news coverage, and building on critical studies of quantification, we consider China's municipal SCSs as social quantification infrastructures and investigate their technological structures, political logic, and potential implications. By social quantification infrastructures, we refer to an assemblage of institutional, regulatory, material, and social layers of data relations between governments and citizens developed to monitor and regulate people in increasingly datafied ways. Our findings suggest that local governments follow the same logic and procedure to deploy the SCSs as standardized processes to quantify various dimensions of personal life into a common metric, whereas potential indicators and scoring mechanisms are substantially flexible across cities. We argue that the SCSs strengthen the state's management of citizens in substantively important ways, specifically by tightly mingling quantification practices with social and economic life of citizens. People are hence rendered measurable, comparable, and governable through increasing social quantification of everyday life.

## Quantification as a form of social control

Data have long been a key source of power and legitimacy. The collection of population data and the use of numbers have always been central to states and public sectors, reflecting the rise of bureaucracy and the rationalization of social control (Bouk, 2015; Desrosieres, 1998; Foucault, 1978; Scott, 1998). For centuries, governments have built data infrastructures for various purposes such as crime control, citizenship identification, and surveillance (Lauer, 2017; Lyon, 2007). Through quantification, state power and other actors transform social structures into legal and bureaucratic categories (Bouk, 2015).

Notably, the process of quantification is not natural; instead, it is inherent in technological systems and socially constructed, aiming to reduce social and political complexities (Bowker & Star, 2000; Scott, 1998). Social quantification thus further promotes the legibility and simplification of the society and makes people calculable and governable (Scott, 1998). In doing so, quantification subsequently determines who should be targeted for access, eligibility, suspicion, or exclusion. Thus, social quantification generates ways of seeing and knowing people and is part of the social infrastructures that regulate and steer individual and organizational behaviors (Bowker & Star, 2000; Espeland & Sauder, 2007).

There are at least three waves of social quantification. Numbers and statistics were used by European nations to categorize the population in the nineteenth century (Desrosieres, 1998; Scott, 1998). The early practices were led primarily by governments

and public sectors, attempting to count people and further generate knowledge about society. The abstraction of social life also enabled a new form of social control by creating legible people and managing life (Scott, 1998). During the late nineteenth century, consumer credit rating was initially developed in the United States to evaluate the creditworthiness of individuals and firms (Lauer, 2017). In the early 20th century, the rise of welfare states further enhanced quantification practices like census and public statistics in Europe and the United States (Lips et al., 2009). Although automated tools like punch-card machines had been used during the period, early quantification relied heavily on paper-based administration and human assessment.

The second wave of development took place in the 1960s when credit rating agencies progressively adopted relational databases and information infrastructures for computerizing financial credit reporting (Lauer, 2017). It was also facilitated by the so-called social indicators movement aiming to measure social values using numbers and data. Compared to the first wave, private corporations and markets played increasingly important roles in transforming social life into metrics and data (Citron & Pasquale, 2014). Credit scoring systems (e.g., FICO) and constant surveillance were developed by private sectors for evaluating whether people would default on their debts and for building "the scored society" (Citron & Pasquale, 2014; Fourcade & Healy, 2017). While the first wave quantification aimed to count people at the population level, the second wave focused on creating profiling and measurement at the individual level.

Big data and computational revolutions promote third-wave development by offering automated decision-making and massive data entrenched in institutional infrastructures and digital platforms (Couldry & Mejias, 2019; Livingstone, 2019; Pasquale, 2015). Massive databases are aggregated and explored for identifying patterns and correlations that were previously impossible (Beer, 2018; boyd & Crawford, 2012). For instance, credit reporting agencies have expanded scoring systems by gathering data relating to nonfinancial payments, digital footprints, and psychometric testing (Aitken, 2017). Media industries also adopt digital tools to improve audience analytics (Livingstone, 2019). Moreover, technology companies now can predict individual behaviors via predictive algorithms (Brayne, 2017; Dencik et al., 2019). As a result, people are constantly assessed in the context of statistical estimation, and further transformed into automation and statistical analytics (Cheney-Lippold, 2018; Couldry & Mejias, 2019).

While private sectors largely dominate the deployment of digital technologies in social quantification (Beer, 2018; Couldry & Mejias, 2019), state actors are vigorously adopting new technologies and building data infrastructures (Dencik et al., 2019). India, for instance, has launched a biometric identification database named Aadhaar for providing public services and evaluating citizens (Singh, 2020). Law enforcement in the US employs big data analytics to calculate risk scores and transform surveillance practices (Brayne, 2017). Further, the EU has proposed iBorderCtrl project to detect deception and strengthen border control using emotional AI (Sánchez-Monedero & Dencik, 2020). Obviously, current social quantification focuses on automated technologies and data warehouses to real-time evaluate and monitor individuals.

To be sure, the People's Republic of China (PRC) has practiced social quantification to assess and classify people (Ghosh, 2020). Dang'an (personnel dossiers), for instance, is used to aggregate personal information like education and employment. Another system Hukou (household registration) can determine whether people have access to housing, healthcare, and education in cities. More recently, China has aggressively employed digital technologies to monitor and categorize citizens. For instance, local authorities have launched "citizen morality files" for recording and assessing neighbors' good deeds (Jiang, 2020). In 2020, the Chinese governments have collaborated with tech giants Alibaba and Tencent to prevent the spread of COVID-19 by quantifying people's travel history and

health status (Liang, 2020). Ethnic sorting, drones, and GPS tracker have been used to strengthen surveillance in Xinjiang (Leibold, 2020). The development of these initiatives suggests that China has been heavily investing in leveraging digital technologies for social quantification and social management.

## SCSs in China

China's credit system was initially constructed for the socialist market economy in the early 1990s (Creemers, 2018). Similar to other consumer credit systems such as FICO, the original SCSs emphasized evaluating the creditworthiness of individuals (Jiang, 2020). Yet, it has gradually grown to include not only individuals and corporates but also organizations and governmental entities since 2002 (Creemers, 2018; Liang et al., 2018). In 2007, China's State Council regarded social credit as a key component of China's market economy. In 2014, the State Council further improved the deployment of national SCSs. The current SCSs involve both financial and moralistic trustworthiness, attempting to evaluate society, government, judiciary, and commerce. It will eventually promote sincerity and social morality and meantime enforce legal compliance (Zhang, 2020).

To achieve the goal, national SCSs are championed by updated institutional structures and data infrastructures (e.g., Credit China). These deployments enable national SCSs to collect and extract large amounts of data for credit assessment (Liang et al., 2018). Moreover, the SCSs have established a joint reward-punishment mechanism offering incentives for good behaviors and sanctions for trust-breaking behaviors (Creemers, 2018; Engelmann et al., 2019). This mechanism has the potential to discipline individual behavior and foster law-abiding citizens (Kostka & Antoine, 2019). Although Western media and observers have widely criticized the SCSs, research suggests that Chinese citizens show a high level of approval of the project (Kostka, 2019). More recently, scholars consider China's SCSs as a specific instance of the global expansion of quantification practices (Bach, 2020; Mac Síthigh & Siems, 2019). The rise of the SCSs hence indicates governments' schema to develop infrastructures for quantifying and monitoring people.

One of the most important aspects of the SCSs is the profiling of individuals. Currently, China is building several parallel systems for rating personal reputation and creditworthiness (Liu, 2019). The multiplicity further complicates the understanding of the SCSs since these systems have different objectives and rely on distinct databases. First, the People's Bank of China (PBC) has developed the Credit Reference Center since 2004, aiming to evaluate lending and economic activities of individuals and corporations using information from mortgages, credit cards, delayed payments, and law enforcement (Liu, 2019). Second, China's commercial credit rating agencies have rapidly expanded since 2015 (Chong, 2019). Eight companies including Ant Financial and Tencent are encouraged to build digital platforms for assessing customer credit. In addition to financial data, these platforms also collect people's online networks and interactions (Kostka, 2019). In 2018, PBC launched Baihang Credit with these companies and National Internet Finance Association of China, seeking to share credit data and promote credit assessment.

However, while the body of work on national SCSs is burgeoning, little attention has been paid to the evaluation of personal social credit at local levels. In fact, China's municipal governments are actively implementing the SCSs for assessing the creditworthiness of citizens. The earliest case is Suining's public credit management system launched in 2010. Since 2015, multiple cities have been involved in building local SCSs (Mac Síthigh & Siems, 2019). These local schemes emphasize social and economic life and calculate numeric scores for residents (Liu, 2019). Nevertheless, we know very little about how local SCSs collect data and rate personal credit, and what indicators have been adopted in the

SCSs. Therefore, the current scholarship needs to interrogate the implementation and operation of the SCSs in pilot cities. In this study, we address the following research questions:

RQ1: What personal data have been collected by the local SCSs to render what types of knowledge about citizens visible?

RQ2: How do the technical and institutional features of the SCSs shape how governments measure and quantify citizens?

RQ3: What are the potential ramifications of employing the SCSs as the infrastructure of social quantification?

# METHODS

## Data

This study relies on policy documentation, official regulations and platforms, news coverage, and gray literature to map out the technological, political, and social dimensions of the SCSs. First, we collected current policies regarding personal social credit issued by the central government and 32 provincial-level governments. Next, we compiled a list of China's prefecture-level cities, as local SCSs have been mainly operated in these cities. We then performed keyword searches using city names and personal social credit on Credit China and local credit platforms (e.g., Credit Hangzhou). This yielded 247 documents: 158 are general plans for the construction of the SCSs and 89 involve the design of the SCSs. We paid particular attention to these 89 documents to understand how the SCSs are designed and operated in prefecture-level cities. Finally, we monitored public discussion about the SCSs by gathering news articles, academic and gray literature published between January 2015 and June 2021. These sources supplement information and help us gain further understanding of the potential implications of the SCSs.

## Analysis

We draw on a policy implementation method to examine how the SCSs are designed and implemented, and what are the possible consequences. As a policy analysis method, policy implementation explores how governmental agencies put policies into action and what factors explain the effectiveness of implementations (Nilsen et al., 2013). This approach allows researchers to systematically analyze state-sponsored infrastructures, since these infrastructures are mainly designed by public policies (Freeman et al., 2019). In this study, we consider the SCSs as a centrally-coordinated policy process by which municipal governments need to follow the chain of command from central policy-makers and meantime design and carry out local experiments. Previous literature suggests that the Chinese central government encourages local officials to simultaneously test various versions of policies (Heilmann, 2008). Hence, we adopt a “top-down” approach viewing policy implementation as a decision-making pipeline from policymakers to local experimentation (Nilsen et al., 2013). This allows us to comprehensively investigate the implementation and operation of the SCSs at local levels.

We began our data analysis by closely reading national and provincial policies. While these policies did not provide details about local systems, they helped us understand the top-down mechanisms of the SCSs. Next we turned to municipal policies. We first read policies about quantification practices, paying close attention to the processes and indicators of calculating credit scores. This allowed us to explore the modular designs

and components of the SCSs. We also considered the indicators used for credit assessment as a way to reverse-engineer political logic embedded in the SCSs, as they imply how political goals are imposed into social quantification to define what might be a good citizen. We thus identified these indicators mentioned in our data. Finally, we analyzed how official policies and news media discussed the potential implications of the SCSs, particularly the reward and punishment mechanisms in these cities.

## RESULTS

Our analysis shows that the SCSs are portrayed in a particular narrative about credit crises and technological solutions. Both national and municipal documentations claim that the decline of trustworthiness and morals can be solved via data and technologies. This vision indicates China's attempt to leverage digital technologies for addressing social and economic challenges. Currently, Chinese prefecture-level cities are at different stages of implementing the SCSs. While some have launched the SCSs for assessing citizens, most cities are still in the design and planning stage. First, we find that 41 cities have launched the SCSs since 2015. Figure 1 illustrates that *launched SCSs* are predominantly located in coastal provinces including Jiangsu, Zhejiang, and Shandong. One possible explanation is that these cities have larger populations and better economic performance. Two exceptions are Guiyang in Guizhou province and Baoji in Shaanxi province. Second, we find that 38 pilot cities are expected to operate the SCSs in the near future, so we label them as *forthcoming SCSs*. Cities in this group geographically expand to the Middle and Western regions. Altogether, launched and forthcoming SCSs covers over 400 million populations.

Finally, 98 cities have announced plans for building local SCSs. We thus label them as *SCSs under planning*. Moreover, 156 cities do not publish policies for building the SCSs. This does not mean that they will not implement the SCSs, since almost all

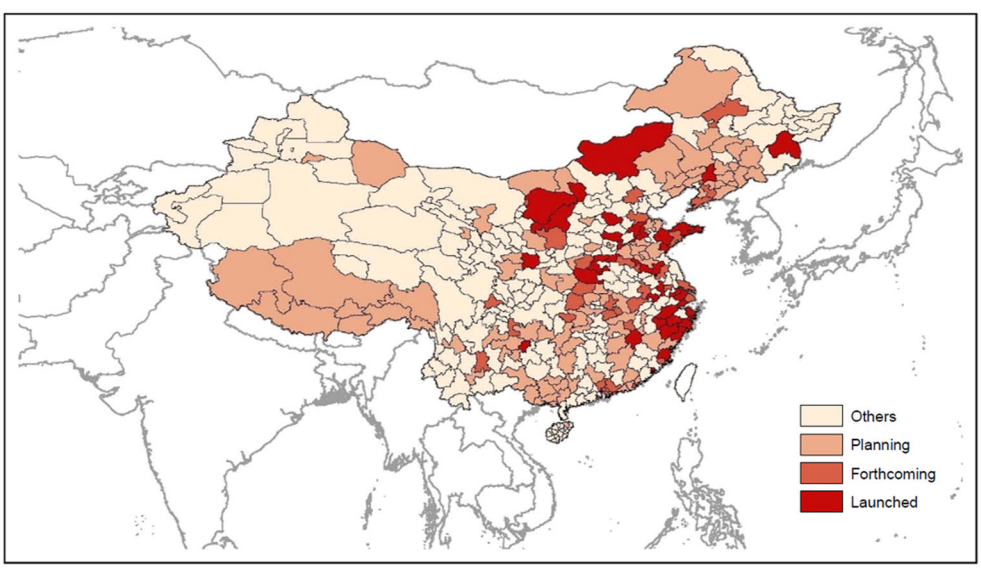


**FIGURE 1** The geolocations of local SCSs in mainland China. *Note*: data were collected by June 2021. SCS, Social Credit System

provinces have released documents for constructing personal social credit systems. For example, China's western provinces Xinjiang and Tibet have released provincial-level documents for strengthening personal social credit, but they do not build any SCSs at municipal levels. Overall, our results suggest that the current SCSs focus mainly on East and Middle China, whereas cities in West China are still in the design and planning stage.

## Governments as data integrators and processors

This section addresses RQ1 by focusing on 50 local SCSs potentially covering 210 million population. Social quantification often involves special types of modularity consisting of a set of components and designs. These structures constitute the properties of a technological system and often present the fixed materiality (Leonardi, 2012). We conceptualize technological structures of the SCSs as the software, standards, and protocols that enable the collection, measurement, and analysis of personal data pertaining to social credit. Our analysis shows that local SCSs in these 50 cities fit different ideas and initiatives into a standardized protocol for rating and ranking citizens. It thus crowds out alternative visions and explanations of assessing "good" citizens. Such approaches allow local governments to calculate and compare citizens in real-time.

The first step of local SCSs is the aggregation of data warehouses involving the deployment of new infrastructures capable of gathering data from multiple sources. We find that the SCSs gather two types of data: identity and behavior data. First, identity data are used to target the status of individuals, often including ten variables (name, gender, ID number, date of birth, education, degree, Hukou, home address, marital status, and career qualification). Identity data are standardized in these local systems. Second, behavioral data are measurements of what people do, involving positive and negative behaviors collected from multiple official sources. This type of data will be updated every month and thus enables real-time evaluations.

Contrary to the widespread expectation that the SCSs extract digital tracing data, we find that local SCSs rely heavily on pre-existing administrative databases. In fact, all identity and behavioral data are official records already collected by governments and state-owned enterprises in their routine activities. Thus, the SCSs contain the pre-established technologies and institutions of Hukou-based authentication of citizens. Moreover, we also find that public security departments play a key role in aggregating behavioral data. In Yiwu and Fuzhou, for instance, public security bureaus contribute to more than 10% of behavioral data. Other important agencies include local courts, justice bureaus, and urban administrative and law enforcement bureaus.

The second step is the transformation of heterogeneous qualities into a common metric. Our analysis shows that the SCSs employ an assemblage of heterogeneous indicators to transform qualitative differences into quantifiable metrics for calculating how many points should be granted to a citizen. Specifically, the SCSs often assign a basic score to each citizen and then assess their behavioral data. We find that the basic score reflects local customization: 17 cities assign 1000 points for residents, whereas others choose 860, 500, or 100 as their basic scores (Table A1). Furthermore, these cities adopt distinct scales for credit scores. Twenty-one cities enact a maximum point, so citizens cannot obtain a score higher than certain points. For example, credit scores in Suzhou, Zhengzhou, and Yiwu's range from 0 to 200, while personal scores in Quzhou and Nanyang are from 0 to 1000. By contrast, other cities do not set a maximum score. It is also worth noting that currently local SCSs are separate from the

central government platforms like Credit China. While these pilot cities can report trust-breaking behaviors to Credit China, most of their records are saved in local databases.

Behavioral data function as indicators to determine whether people earn or lose points. Indicators and scores hence express the degree to which people's past activities statistically relate to their creditworthiness. However, these cities do not provide details about statistical models and methods used in their systems. Our analysis suggests the SCSs do not involve advanced technology like Artificial Intelligence, instead the technological structures enable a simple scoring mechanism. Basically, a social credit score is calculated by summing the points received by each individual. Importantly, we find that there is no agreed-upon version of what indicators constitute social credit scores among these systems. While some cities such as Ruzhou employ more than 200 predictors in their systems, Jiangyin and Puyang only have 37 and 28 indicators, respectively.

In the final step, numerical scores are converted into ordinal levels of measurement, aiming to further categorize and rank citizens. We find that 43 cities have released their credit rankings and two types of labels are used to label these rankings: 25 cities use alphabetically-labeled ordinal measurement ranging from AAA to D, while others introduce name-labeled measurement (i.e., Excellent, Good, Fair, Poor, Risky). These cities also use distinct categories to differentiate personal social credit: nine cities employ eight categories, 14 have six categories, and 17 adopt five categories. Additionally, they have set cut-off points to distinguish the level of social credit, but the decision-making of the thresholds is also inconsistent. For instance, Luohe and Yulin use the same basic score (1000) and categories (six) but different cut-off points. While a person with 1100 points in Luohe is classified as AAA citizen, she is considered as A citizen in Yulin. People can review their credit scores and rankings via official apps, allowing them to learn details about social credit and know how to improve their credit (Figure 2).

Overall, the standardized protocol means that the SCSs are designed by the top leadership and experimented by the local governments with the intention to transform multiple dimensions of personal life into quantifiable metrics, and meanwhile, specific indicators and scoring mechanisms are substantially flexible. In fact, the underlying structures of the local SCSs indicate infrastructure's simultaneous needs for common standards and tailorable indicators (Star & Ruhleder, 1996). It also echoes the claim that China's central policy-makers encourage various local experimentations for public policies (Heilmann, 2008). Moreover, the SCSs build on pre-existing official records, showing how political institutions and structures are always already part of the social quantification infrastructures. Taken together, quantification practices tightly interweave with social contexts and existing power relations, rendering citizens visible as data to the state.

**FIGURE 2** Examples of credit scores

## The calculative and measuring practices of the SCSs

We further explore metrics and calculative practices to understand how the technical and bureaucratic features of the SCSs shape how governments assess citizens (RQ2). We argue that these metrics are the most important part of social quantification, as they show the rationales of what is a "good" citizen to the state. Here metrics indicate the credit indicators and credit-granting process in local SCSs, and they inscribe inherently political values and institutional mechanisms for calculating and comparing citizens. By analyzing multiple metrics and scoring mechanisms, we can reverse-engineer what and how political goals are imposed into the technological structures of the SCSs to determine what might be a good citizen.

People can boost their credit scores by engaging with three types of activities: awards, social charity, and others (Table 1). Specifically, the award category contains official awards and commendations, including good citizen awards, merit awards, entrepreneurship awards, and science and technology awards. Citizens can earn certain points (e.g., 10, 30, 100) if they receive these awards. Furthermore, social charities include volunteer activities, acts of heroism and courage, returning found money, benevolent activities, blood donations, and even body bequest. For instance, people in Suifenhe can receive five points for blood donations and 5–50 points for charitable donations. Finally, several cities also consider other trust-keeping activities like wildlife rescue (Yiwu) and providing hints for public security departments (Fuzhou). We find that the points for the same indicator often vary in these cities. For example, people in Weihai can receive 150 points if they have provincial-level moral rewards, but citizens in Nanyang only get 60 points for the same rewards.

Table 1 illustrates that around 45% of indicators for points accumulation are related to awards and 36% are from social charities, suggesting that the SCSs predominantly consider social morality and moral actions as trust-keeping behaviors for earning points. This also means that those who receive official awards and actively take part in social charities are regarded as "good" citizens by local SCSs. The points accumulation can be used to encourage social morality and raise sincerity culture in these cities. Thus, local SCSs are significantly different from customer credit rating in China, because social morality and sincerity are important factors affecting credit scores.

By contrast, citizens will lose points if they have records in the following categories: social management, commercial defaults, judicial judgments, government affairs, and others. First, social management involves various activities including traffic violations, jaywalking, cheating on tests, lack of care for the elderly, administrative penalties, and being in arrears on water bills, gas bills, and cellphone bills. For example, people in Suqian will lose 20–160 points if they fail to pay electricity bills, and people in Jiangyin may lose 50–200 points if they have traffic violations. Again, the number of indicators varies among these citizens: Rongcheng has 176 indicators to measure social management, Shangqiu only has seven indicators. Overall, this category accounts for 42% of negative behaviors, making it the most important category for points deduction.

Another notable finding is that social management involves broader contexts. Rongcheng, for instance, includes Xinfang (petitioning) in its system. Local residents will lose 10–50 points if they participate in 17 Xinfang-related activities, including petitioning in Beijing, staying at Xinfang agencies, and repeated complaints using online Xinfang system. Meanwhile, people in Rongcheng will lose 20–50 points if they spread misinformation on digital media. Similarly, Suifenhe, Wulian, Erenhot, and Ruzhou also regard the distribution of misinformation on WeChat as an indicator for points deduction. The concentration on social management indicates that the SCSs go beyond traditional credit reporting and thus should be considered as a social management system rather than financial credit agencies.

**TABLE 1** The calculative practices of the SCSs

| Cities | Points accumulation | | | | | Points deduction | | | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | Awards | Social charities | Others | Total | Maximum points | Social management | Commercial defaults | Judicial judgements | Government affairs | Others | Total | Maximum points |
| Baoji | 17 | 4 | 2 | 23 | 913 | 40 | 3 | 14 | 2 | 0 | 59 | 1800 |
| Dezhou | 200 | 200 | 105 | 505 | \ | 715 | 200 | 740 | 200 | \ | 1855 | \ |
| Erenhot | 5 | 34 | 3 | 42 | 1657 | 158 | 11 | 50 | 32 | 0 | 251 | 8485 |
| Fuzhou | 18 | 10 | 2 | 30 | 1550 | 58 | 0 | 11 | 1 | 1 | 71 | 2870 |
| Handan | 6 | 5 | 1 | 12 | 2250 | 14 | 2 | 3 | 2 | 4 | 25 | 2030 |
| Jiangyin | 3 | 8 | 2 | 13 | 1305 | 12 | 2 | 4 | 2 | 4 | 24 | 4840 |
| Lishui | 2 | 2 | 8 | 12 | 290 | 9 | 1 | 0 | 0 | 0 | 10 | 290 |
| Luohe | 1 | 10 | 0 | 11 | 240 | 10 | 9 | 17 | 1 | 2 | 39 | 1635 |
| Nanyang | 4 | 4 | 0 | 8 | 590 | 4 | 1 | 1 | 1 | 1 | 8 | 1050 |
| Ordos | 3 | 3 | 9 | 15 | 338 | 12 | 3 | 3 | 0 | 2 | 20 | 455 |
| Puyang | 5 | 4 | 2 | 11 | 810 | 9 | 2 | 6 | 0 | 0 | 17 | 3320 |
| Rongcheng | 10 | 42 | 9 | 61 | 1223 | 176 | 11 | 20 | 59 | 0 | 266 | 9130 |
| Ruzhou | 18 | 23 | 2 | 43 | 591 | 74 | 18 | 15 | 54 | 3 | 164 | 2431 |
| Shangqiu | 7 | 3 | 2 | 12 | 1160 | 7 | 10 | 4 | 3 | 1 | 25 | 4770 |
| Suifenhe | 16 | 19 | 9 | 44 | 1300 | 79 | 11 | 17 | 54 | 0 | 161 | 6143 |
| Suqian | 11 | 9 | 1 | 21 | 1205 | 40 | 5 | 4 | 8 | 2 | 59 | 7240 |
| Taicang | 8 | 5 | 0 | 13 | 22 | 32 | 3 | 0 | 0 | 1 | 36 | 42 |
| Taizhou | 18 | 8 | 2 | 28 | \ | 18 | 5 | 5 | 2 | 1 | 31 | \ |
| Weihai | 143 | 11 | 39 | 193 | 6647 | 896 | 600 | 91 | 142 | 923 | 2652 | 6800 |
| Wenzhou | 4 | 6 | 3 | 13 | 500 | 9 | 6 | 4 | 0 | 4 | 23 | 1000 |

**TABLE 1** (Continued)

| Cities | Points accumulation | | | | | Points deduction | | | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | Awards | Social charities | Others | Total | Maximum points | Social management | Commercial defaults | Judicial judgements | Government affairs | Others | Total | Maximum points |
| Wulian | 18 | 23 | 2 | 43 | 590 | 74 | 18 | 15 | 54 | 3 | 164 | 2430 |
| Xiangyang | 22 | 7 | 2 | 31 | 1240 | 45 | 12 | 7 | 5 | 2 | 71 | 2290 |
| Yiwu | 32 | 11 | 8 | 51 | 727 | 75 | 19 | 14 | 2 | 11 | 121 | 1016 |
| Yulin | 1 | 4 | 12 | 17 | 1156 | 2 | 1 | 1 | 1 | 5 | 10 | 1510 |
| Zhangjiajie | 5 | 4 | 17 | 26 | 550 | \ | \ | \ | \ | \ | \ | \ |

*Note*: data were collected by June 2021.

Abbreviation: SCS, Social Credit Systems.

Next, commercial defaults include activities like being in arrears on bank loans or housing loans, underpayment of tax, and insurance fraud. These activities are associated with traditional financial credit, indicating that the SCSs also monitor financial and commercial life. We find that around 15% of trust-breaking behaviors are based on commercial defaults. Finally, judicial judgments contain information about law enforcement, civil litigations, and criminal proceedings, while government affairs focus on civil servants. Many cities also include other information like the blacklist for credit assessment. Obviously, the majority of trust-breaking behaviors are concerned with violations of laws and regulations, rather than economic and lending activities. For example, Erenhot publishes information about points deduction every month. Among 197 cases released online between October and December 2019, 115 were related to administrative detentions or penalties, 68 were due to traffic violations, and the remaining 14 were also from social management. Therefore, the SCSs largely expand the scope of credit assessment by focusing on social management and law enforcement.

Moreover, local systems differ greatly in terms of specific indicators and scoring mechanisms. For instance, while Weihai employs more than 2800 items to calculate personal social credit, cities like Nanyang and Yulin have less than 30 indicators (Table 1). The maximum points a person can earn or lose also vary. Nanyang and Ordos adopt the same basic score and rankings, but citizens in Nanyang can earn a maximum of 590 points from 8 indicators whilst people in Ordos can gain a maximum of 338 points from 15 items. Interestingly, we also find that these cities employ more indicators for points deduction than points accumulation. While the average indicators for raising credit scores are 51 in these cities, that number increases to 256 for losing points. This further suggests that local governments imagine the SCSs as a tool for restricting inadequate behaviors and improving social management.

Taken together, the measuring and calculative practices imbued with the SCSs indicate the built-in aspirations of what might be "good" citizens. Our result shows that the SCSs contain multiple dimensions including social morality, financial credit, legal enforcement and compliance, and law-abiding actions. These local experimentations consider social morality as trust-keeping behaviors and desired outcomes, encouraging citizens to actively participate in moral thinking and actions. Meanwhile, trust-breaking behaviors are mainly related to social management, meaning that local governments attempt to achieve greater levels of social manipulation and law enforcement. These aspirations are enabled by embedding quantification practices in everyday life, allowing the state power to comprehensively render citizens visible as data and intervene in social and economic life. Consequently, the SCSs normalize the notion of "good" citizens and ultimately induce moral and law-abiding behaviors, while citizens are expected to comply with moral norms and entrenched power hierarchies.

## Discriminatory services and behavior modification for deviance

It is too early to evaluate the effectiveness of the SCSs, because these systems have only been established in the past few years. In this section, we examine the potential implications of these local schemes by looking at the reward and punishment mechanism (RQ3). As mentioned, credit rankings enable the SCSs to sort people with different scores into homogeneous categories, thereby simplifying social and political complexities. In this process, local SCSs define what is good and what is deviant, whilst people are constantly measured against one another. We find that these cities employ standardized categories for reward and punishment. In particular, rewards emphasize incentives in public services,

finance, administration, and public praise, whereas punishments include restrictions in administration, consumption, finance, public shaming, and other areas (Table A2).

Citizens in A/Good category will receive various rewards and benefits to lower transaction costs and obtain priority. To be specific, around 44% of rewards are related to public services. Eligible citizens can receive, for instance, discounts for parking, public transportation, and public gyms. They can also get deposit waivers in libraries and hospitals, fast-tracks in schools, hospitals, and other public institutions. Cities like Rongcheng also offer healthcare benefits and social welfare for AA and AAA citizens. Moreover, 28% of rewards are financial and economic benefits. A/Good citizens can get lower interest rates and tax reductions, access government procurement, and obtain financial support. Further, administrative rewards include priority for administrative approval and political promotions, accounting for 13% of rewards. This type of benefit is only granted to civil servants and party members. Citizens in A/Good group are more likely to be promoted by local governments. Finally, AAA/Excellent citizens in 12 cities also receive public praise, such as news coverage and local redlist.

By contrast, citizens in C/Poor category would receive multiple sanctions aiming to revoke eligibility and set restrictions. First, 38% of punishments are related to administrative sanctions. For instance, citizens in C and D groups cannot obtain awards and commendations from local governments, and they are banned from taking up employment in the governments and public institutions. Meanwhile, 27% of punishment seeks to limit people's access to economic activities including commercial insurance and the increase of interest rates. C-level citizens need to pay higher interest rates and are restricted from certain financial services. Moreover, some cities also constrain consumption for D citizens. People in this category cannot buy flights and high-speed train tickets, as well as luxury vehicles and apartments. Their kids are also restricted from attending private schools. Finally, public shaming is widely used to punish those who have low credit scores. Local governments can publish trust-breaking information on local media.

Obviously, the SCSs can deliver discriminatory services using credit rankings. People with higher scores and rankings are considered as “good” citizens and thus receive material benefits and reputational gains. Conversely, those who have lower rankings are classified as “bad” citizens and hence get multiple restrictions and exclusions. Thus, the SCSs generate distinctions between seemingly monolithic citizens and subsequently allocates different benefits and sanctions. More remarkably, the scoring mechanisms and discriminatory services allow the SCSs to practically steer and modify individual behavior. Previous literature suggests that people tend to change their behaviors in reaction to being evaluated or measured (Espeland & Sauder, 2007). Splitting and sorting citizens into categories potentially shape social life and redistribute resources, thereby disciplining individual behavior towards certain desirable goals defined by the governments. Our result suggests that the SCSs have been designed to modify individual behavior through two approaches: point accumulation and credit repair. While the former encourages citizens to engage with socially accepted actions, the latter requires citizens to express their commitments to the government.

As discussed, the political logic of the SCSs is that local governments attempt to encourage social morality and enforce social management. This goal is further supported by the reward and punishment mechanisms imposed on the SCSs. To receive benefits and avoid punishments, citizens are motivated to participate in activities that can raise their credit scores. In fact, the SCSs explicitly encourage people to get extra points by engaging in charitable donations, volunteer services, blood donations, and other social charitable activities, which are often not necessarily trustworthy or creditworthy related behaviors. Citizens are also expected to exercise self-discipline for maximizing their credit scores and

be in conformity with the norms. Therefore, the point accumulation could stimulate people's engagement with social charities and law-abiding actions.

In addition, people can improve their scores and rankings by signing credit commitment letters, promising that they will not take part in trust-breaking actions. The credit commitment letter also asks people to assure that they will participate in law-abiding activities and strengthen self-discipline. People in some cities need to attend credit education and training to receive credit repair. Further, several cities publicly announce that people cannot repair their credit if they intentionally take part in trust-breaking behaviors, their actions damage social orders and the government's credibility, or they disrupt online information flows. Credit repair shows that people are expected to be responsible for monitoring and self-discipline their behaviors and show commitments to governments. As such, the SCSs are socially transformative, since it plays a key role in reshaping and reinforcing social orders and state-citizen relations.

However, the effectiveness of the SCSs still remains in question. While the system can encourage self-discipline and self-restraint, they may not be able to enforce internalizing behaviors. This raises questions about the intrinsic quality of citizens, as people are mainly motivated by external regulations and incentives to enact trust-keeping activities. We find cities like Hangzhou aim to commodify credit scores so citizens can obtain more material benefits. Thus, credit scores do not necessarily mean increased morality and sincerity.

## DISCUSSION

This article examines the technological structures, political logic, and potential implications of China's local SCSs. While neither social quantification nor real-time monitoring in administrative decision-making is a novel phenomenon, the SCSs introduce a new way of deepening datafication in identifying and classifying people. We reveal that the SCSs enable standardized processes for quantifying personal life, whereas potential metrics and scoring mechanisms are substantially flexible at local levels. In particular, the SCSs make people legible and thus reconstruct them into data subjects that can be acted upon, in our case, being rated, categorized, and sanctioned or rewarded. Moreover, these local systems attempt to separate and exclude people so that they can define “good” citizens and normalize “deviant” behaviors. Consequently, the SCSs shift state-citizen relations in substantively important ways by tightly mingling quantification practices with social and economic life.

We argue that local SCSs function as infrastructures of social quantification to split and sort people into classificatory schemes for simplifying social contexts and normalizing social consensus. The SCSs encompass both technological architectures and political values of moral judgements defined by the governments of what is trustworthy, requiring state power or other actors for design, deployment, operation, and evolution. The fundamental purpose of local SCSs, hence, is not only to render people visible but to create a reality of such governance and social consensus of “creditworthiness” and “good” through continuous rating and ranking practices enabled by digital technologies and data. This allows state power to see and categorize citizens in an increasingly abstract and calculable way, thereby generating discriminatory profiling and modifying individual behavior.

We further propose a framework to examine the SCSs from three overarching dimensions: technological structures, political logic, and potential implications. The framework systematically explores how the social quantification infrastructures like the SCSs work, who control them, and what they can do. The first layer technological structures refer to the architectures, components, structural designs, and decision-making pipelines that support the implementation and operation of sociotechnical systems. Technological

structures include software and hardware components configured to constitute certain infrastructures. These structures constitute the properties of a technological system and are available for all users (Leonardi, 2012). Hence, a comprehensive analysis of technological structures helps understand how social quantification is deployed and operated in the background.

The second layer is political logic entrenched into technological structures. Admittedly, social quantification infrastructure has inherently embedded in existing social and political values and institutional structures in the design, implementation, and operation (Star & Ruhleder, 1996). Thus, we need to investigate the entrenched power relations and political purposes underlying technological structures of social quantification. Finally, all social quantification infrastructures have potential goals that reshape and reconstruct social orders and power relations (Espeland & Sauder, 2007). While infrastructures help state power achieve political goals through certain technological structures, they also generate boundaries for excluding people and regulating individual behavior. Therefore, it is vital to investigate how these boundaries facilitate new ways of seeing people and reshaping state-citizen relations.

In this study, we do not analyze how citizens make sense of and react to the SCSs because local SCSs are novel phenomena and people may not fully perceive their functions. While local SCSs have the potential to facilitate "good" citizens and discipline "deviant" behaviors, it is unclear whether such quantification will be sufficient to achieve the goal. It is possible that the SCSs may not internalize people's behaviors, thereby limiting the ability to enhance sincerity culture and enforce law-abiding behaviors. Therefore, future research should examine the effectiveness of local SCSs by focusing on how people understand and respond to the SCSs. Another limitation of this study is that we do not investigate how SCSs are related to credit scoring on digital platforms. As mentioned, emerging SCSs are parallel to the rise of quantification on Chinese platforms like Alipay. It is hence interesting to examine how official quantification is connected to and different from commercial quantification.

To conclude, China's SCSs represent an important shift in the intervention of quantification technologies into everyday life. In this article, we underscore that the SCSs have been extensively adopted by local governments for assessing personal social credit and regulating individual behavior. At present, China has no unified SCSs and more cities are expected to launch their systems in the next few years. We have shown that the SCSs might enable state power to intervene in social and economic life by rating and ranking citizens. The rise of SCSs thus indicates China's ambitions to raise social morality and upgrade social management using digital technologies and massive datasets.

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## APPENDIX: THE MAKING OF "GOOD" CITIZENS

Table A1, A2

**TABLE A1** Summary information of SCS

| City | Date | Basic score | Score scale | Credit rankings | Targeted population (10,000) |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Baoji | 2020/4 | 100 | 0 | 5 categories: AAA: >161, AA: 131–160, A: 100–130, B: 71–99, C: <70 | 360 |
| Dezhou | 2021/3 | 1000 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1400, AA: 1200–1399, A: 1050–1199; B: 900–1049, C: 650–899, D: <650 | 550 |
| Erenhot | 2019/5 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA: >1250, AA: 1100–1249, A+: 1040–1099, A: 1000–1039, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 7 |
| Fuzhou (抚州) | 2018/1 | 500 | 0–1000 | 6 categories: Excellent: >750, Very good: 600–750, Good: 500–600, Fair: 400–500, Poor: 250–400, Risky: <250 | 320 |
| Fuzhou (福州) | 2018/6 | 500 | 0–1000 | 6 categories: Excellent: 850–1000. Very good: 750–849, Good: 650–749, Fair: 550–649, Poor: 350–549, Risky: <349 | 690 |
| Guiyang | 2017/8 | 100 | 0 | 4 categories: A, B, C, D | 30 |
| Handan | 2019/11 | 1000 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1250, AA: 1100–1249, A: 1000–1099; B: 850–999, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 900 |
| Hangzhou | 2018/11 | - | 0–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent: >750, Very good: 700–750, Good: 600–700, Fair: 550–600, Poor: <550 | 1100 |
| Hohhot | 2019/4 | 500 | 0 | 6 categories: Excellent: >850, Very good:750–849, Good: 650–749, Fair: 550–649, Poor: 350–549, Risky: <349 | 123 |
| Huangshi | Forthcoming | 600 | 0 | 5 categories: AAA, AA, A, B, C | 250 |
| Jiangyin | 2018/9 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA: >1250, AA: 1100–1249, A+: 1040–1099, A: 1000–1039, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 360 |
| Jiaxing | 2015/1 | - | 0–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent: 820–1000. Good: 800–819, Fair: 7500–799, Poor: 600–749, Risky: <599 | 350 |

**TABLE A1** (Continued)

| City | Date | Basic score | Score scale | Credit rankings | Targeted population (10,000) |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Jinan | 2020/6 | 600 | 0 | | 190 |
| Kaifeng | 2019/12 | 650 | 0–1000 | 6 categories: AAA: 850–1000, AA: 750–849分, A: 650–749分, B: 550–649, C: 350–549, D: <349 | 430 |
| Lishui | 2020/4 | 500 | 0 | 5 categories: AAA: >1060, AA: 1000–1060, A: 850–1000, B: 750–850, C: <750 | 260 |
| Luohe | 2019/8 | 1000 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1100, AA: 1050–1099, A: 960–1049, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 260 |
| Nanjing | 2016/11 | - | - | - | 1100 |
| Nanyang | 2019/8 | 600 | 0–1000 | 6 categories: AAA: 800–1000, AA: 700–800, A: 600–700, B: 500–600, C: 400–500, D: 0–400 | 100 |
| Ningbo | 2020/1 | 650 | 0 | 5 categories: Excellent: >700, Very good: 650–700, Good: 600–650, Fair: 400–600, Poor: <400 | 1000 |
| Ordos | 2018/11 | 600 | 0–1000 | 8 categories: Credit model: 850-1000, Excellent: >800–849, Very good II: 750–799, Very good: 700–749, Good: 650–699, Fair: 600–649, Poor: 550–559, Risky: <549 | 180 |
| Puyang | 2019/1 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA: >1300, AA: 1100–1299, A+: 1040–1099, A: 1000–1039, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 400 |
| Qiqihar | Forthcoming | 500 | 0–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent: >800, Good: 600–799, Fair: 500–599, Poor: 400–499, Risk: <399 | 500 |
| Quzhou | 2019/8 | 860 | 0–1000 | - | 240 |
| Rizhao | 2020/10 | 1000 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1200, AA: 1050–1199, A: 950–1049, B: 850–949, C: 700–849, D: <700 | 280 |
| Rongcheng | 2019/1 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA: >1050, AA: 1030–1049, A+: 1001–1029, A: 1000, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 80 |

(Continues)

**TABLE A1** (Continued)

| City | Date | Basic score | Score scale | Credit rankings | Targeted population (10,000) |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Ruzhou | 2018/11 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA >1050, AA: 1030–1049, A+: 1001–1029, A: 1000, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 93 |
| Shanghai (Pudong) | Forthcoming | - | 300–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent: >800, Very good: 700–800, Good: 550–700, Fair: 400–550, Poor: <400 | 500 |
| Shangqiu | Forthcoming | 1000 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1350, AA: 1200–1349, A: 1000–1199; B: 800–999, C: 600–799, D: <599 | 900 |
| Shenyang | 2019/3 | - | - | - | 700 |
| Shijiazhuang | 2020/5 | 500 | 0–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent: 800–1000. Good: 600–799, Fair: 500–599, Poor: 400–499, Risky: <399 | 1000 |
| Suifenhe | 2019/12 | 960 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1050, AA: 1030–1049, A: 960–1029, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 10 |
| Suqian | 2018/3 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA: >1250, AA: 1100–1249, A+: 1040–1099, A: 1000–1039, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 457 |
| Suzhou | 2016/1 | 100 | 0–200 | - | 1300 |
| Suzhou | 2019/1 | - | - | - | 650 |
| Taicang | 2018/12 | 100 | 0–200 | 3 categories: Excellent: >120, Good: 81–120, Poor: <80 | 68 |
| Taizhou | 2021/1 | 630 | 0–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent: 800–1000. Very good: 750–799, Good: 650–749, Fair: 600–649, Poor: <599 | 600 |
| Weihai | 2018/5 | 1000 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1150, AA: 1050–1149, A: 1000–1049, B: 950–999, C: 801–949, D: <800 | 240 |
| Wenzhou | 2019/10 | 1000 | 0 | 5 categories: Excellent, Very Good, Good, Fair, Poor | 800 |
| Wuhu | 2017/7 | 800 | 350–1200 | 5 categories: Excellent: 950–1200, Very good: 850–949, Good: 700–849, Fair: 550–699, Poor: <549 | 340 |

**TABLE A1** (Continued)

| City | Date | Basic score | Score scale | Credit rankings | Targeted population (10,000) |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Wulian | 2018/9 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA: >1050, AA: 1030–1049, A+: 1001–1029, A: 1000, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 42 |
| Wuxi | 2021/9 | 650 | 0–1000 | | 550 |
| Xiamen | 2018/7 | - | 150–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent credit, Very good, Good, Fair, Poor | 390 |
| Xiangyang | Forthcoming | 500 | 0–1000 | 5 categories: A: 700–1000, B: 600–700, M: 500–600, C: 400–500, D: <400 | 568 |
| Yantai | 2018/11 | 1000 | 0 | 5 categories: A+, A, B, C, D | 45 |
| Yiwu | 2018/1 | 100 | 0–200 | 6 categories: Excellent: >150, Very good: 120–150, Good: 100–120, Fair: 80–100, Poor: 50–80, Risky: <50 | 220 |
| Yulin | 2019/8 | 1000 | 0 | 6 categories: AAA: >1450, AA: 1250–1449, A: 1050–1249; B: 850–1049, C: 650–849, D: <650 | 300 |
| Zhangjiajie | Forthcoming | - | 350–1000 | 4 categories: A: 850–1000, B: 700–849, C: 500–699, D: 350–500 | 140 |
| Zhengzhou | 2019/8 | 100 | 0–200 | 5 categories: Excellent: >150. Good: 120–150, Fair: 100–120, Poor: 80–100, Risky: <80 | 1000 |
| Zhoushan | Forthcoming | - | 0–1000 | 5 categories: Excellent: 900–1000, Good: 800–899, Fair: 700–799, Poor: <700, Blacklist | 100 |
| Zhucheng | 2019/5 | 1000 | 0 | 8 categories: AAA: >1250, AA: 1100–1249, A+: 1040–1099, A: 1000–1039, A–: 960–999, B: 850–959, C: 600–849, D: <599 | 100 |

**TABLE A2** The reward and punishment system in the SCSs

| Cities | Reward | | | | | | Punishment | | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | Public services | Finance + Commerce | Administration | Public praise | Others | Total | Administration | Consumption | Finance | Public shaming | Others | Total |
| Erenhot | 18 | 6 | 3 | 3 | 1 | 31 | 11 | 1 | 2 | 3 | 2 | 19 |
| Fuzhou (抚州) | 5 | 3 | 2 | 2 | 1 | 13 | 6 | 2 | 8 | 2 | 3 | 21 |
| Jiangyin | 7 | 9 | 1 | 0 | 2 | 19 | - | - | - | - | - | - |
| Kaifeng | 4 | 2 | 2 | 1 | 1 | 10 | - | - | - | - | - | - |
| Lishui | 13 | 5 | 2 | 1 | 0 | 21 | - | - | - | - | - | - |
| Luohe | 3 | 4 | 1 | 0 | 3 | 11 | - | - | - | - | - | - |
| Nanyang | 4 | 2 | 1 | 1 | 1 | 9 | 5 | 2 | 2 | 1 | 2 | 12 |
| Rongcheng | 9 | 5 | 5 | 1 | 2 | 22 | 9 | 0 | 3 | 3 | 1 | 16 |
| Ruzhou | 3 | 9 | 3 | 0 | 2 | 17 | 7 | 0 | 4 | 3 | 2 | 16 |
| Shijiazhuang | 6 | 3 | 1 | 2 | 2 | 14 | 2 | 0 | 0 | 1 | 1 | 4 |
| Suqian | 8 | 5 | 2 | 0 | 1 | 16 | | | | | | |
| Taicang | 5 | 0 | 0 | 0 | 2 | 7 | 5 | 0 | 0 | 0 | 0 | 5 |
| Taizhou | 5 | 2 | 2 | 1 | 1 | 11 | | | | | | |
| Weihai | 16 | 8 | 6 | 1 | 3 | 34 | 2 | 0 | 7 | 1 | 1 | 11 |
| Wuhu | 23 | 7 | 4 | 2 | 0 | 36 | | | | | | |
| Wulian | 3 | 9 | 3 | 0 | 2 | 17 | 7 | 0 | 4 | 3 | 2 | 16 |
| Xiangyang | 5 | 3 | 2 | 2 | 1 | 13 | 4 | 3 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 9 |
| Yiwu | 5 | 4 | 2 | 2 | 2 | 15 | 4 | 4 | 11 | 2 | 5 | 26 |
| Yulin | 5 | 3 | 2 | 2 | 1 | 13 | 6 | 4 | 9 | 2 | 3 | 24 |
| Zhangjiajie | 5 | 5 | 2 | 0 | 0 | 12 | 5 | 5 | 2 | 0 | 0 | 12 |

Abbreviation: SCS, Social Credit Systems.